1 Concepts of Ethics

Ethics

- The ancient Greek word 'ethikos', from which the English word 'ethics' has been derived, may signify habits, temperament, or attitude. Ethical principles are the criteria to measure actions as right or wrong, good or terrible, and fair or unfair.
- The question, 'What is the proper thing to do?' lies at the heart of ethics. They have an impact on individuals' decision-making and way of life. It is the standard by which individuals and societies are judged, and it provides direction for appropriate behaviour by outlining what people should and should not do. Implementing moral (from the Latin social norms or conventions, which refers to norms of appropriate conduct) or ethical ideals change human behaviour and activity, which in turn helps to create a more peaceful and just society.
- At its heart, ethics is a matter of how people treat one another. Inappropriate rational thinking, incomplete knowledge, and limited understanding can contribute to strained relationships, lack of sympathy, which can lead to conflict rather than the mutually beneficial cooperation that results from having clear goals and working together to achieve those goals.
- The factors that aid in understanding the definitions of non-ethical behaviour are given below.
    - As many individuals do not practise religion, it is important to remember that ethics are universal and not limited to religions. Religious teachings often promote morality, although they do not always apply to every situation.
    - The definition of ethics goes beyond only obeying the rules. Many ethical norms may be found in a well-developed legal system, yet it is possible for the law to violate these norms sometimes. The legal system may be sluggish in responding to emerging issues and struggle to develop and enforce norms in key areas, for instance raping one's spouse is not against the law but is deeply immoral.
    - Ethical behaviour deviates from commonly held beliefs. While some societies maintain a high moral standard, others fall prey to corruption and ethical blind spots. Slavery's prominence in the United States before the civil war is one such example.

Essence of Ethics

- To achieve shared objectives of peace, coordination, and stability in society, one must all adhere to a set of core ethical values. Values such as responsibility, sympathy, honesty, integrity, credibility, kindness, etc., are excellent indicators of this trait in public life.
- What people choose to do or not do, is at the core of ethics. People have what they call freedom as they are aware of their conscious thoughts and can make educated, thoughtful decisions. Their decisions will affect not only themselves but others around them. People are well cognizant of the fact that their conduct is entirely on their shoulders. However, their survival and development are not guaranteed by whatever intrinsic information or instincts they may possess. Their emotional need to stay alive and avoid suffering may be hardwired, but the knowledge of how to do so is not.
- Better decisions for one's personal and collective happiness may be made with the guidance of a reasonable, non-contradictory ethic.
- The decisions that people make on a daily basis have the potential to firm up into a society's core ideas and values over the course of many years. These morals and convictions have a significant impact on the structure of a nation's judicial system.

Branches of Ethics

Ethics serves as a tool for deciding any course of action. Without it, engineers' actions would be random and aimless. They would have no means of considering what will be right (ethical) or wrong (unethical) in their actions. They would have limited guidance for decisions aimed at resolving ethical dilemmas in practice. Applied ethics, normative ethics, meta-ethics, and descriptive ethics are the four primary subfields that make up the field of ethics.

Applied Ethics

- Applied ethics examines morally significant yet controversial situations that arise in real life, such as the application of the death penalty, surrogacy, moral existential dilemmas that arise in everyday life, the genetic modification of foetuses, euthanasia, whistleblowing, and compulsory HIV testing, among other topics.
- It helps professionals to identify relevant issues and ask what is right or wrong in a particular situation and attempts to provide an objective answer. It aims to address the problem of knowing what is right and wrong, good and bad. However, what is right or wrong varies from society-to-society, person to another person, and can also vary among different cultures, religions, nationalities, and professions. Because applied ethics is a subcategory of moral philosophy, its primary focus is on the criteria that individuals or groups use to determine whether certain behaviours should be considered appropriate or inappropriate.

Normative Ethics

- One should focus on normative ethics. Put it in another way, it gives people a
- Framework for evaluating right and wrong. Many philosophers have sought to provide this framework via their reasoning, including Kant with his deontological ethics, John Stuart Mill, and Jeremy Bentham with their utilitarianism, and Aristotle with his virtue ethics.
- Normative ethics looks for an ideal litmus test of reasonable behaviour. Fieser states that it provides the golden rule. Do what you require others to do with you. The negative formulation of this rule states that you should not do what you do not want others to do with you.

Meta-Ethics

Meta-ethics investigates the broader questions, such as 'how can morality be defined?', 'What is justice?' etc. It differs remarkably from applied and normative ethics in that it does not concern with determining what is right or wrong; instead, it asks questions about the nature of morality rather than the specifics of right or wrong. Meta-ethics can be viewed as synonymous with analytical ethics because it concerns analytical inquiry into what is goodness, excellence, amoral, immoral, and so on. Moreover, meta-ethics asks the questions such as what it means to say that a decision is good, or how one could know, or recognise something is ethically good.

Descriptive Ethics

Descriptive ethics concerns what one believes to be right or wrong, and holds, condemns, or punishes in law or custom. It is sometimes referred to as comparative ethics because it involves comparing ethical systems, the ethics of the past and present, ethics of one society against another, and ethics which people claim to follow with the actual rules of behaviour that explain their conducts.

Ethical Theories

- Decisions involving ethics must be carefully considered because of the world's complexity and the prevalence of novel situations and ambiguity. While pondering a real-world situation, people might use some professional guidance. Ethics is a specialisation of philosophy. It is sometimes said that philosophy is a systematic attempt to understand, establish, or defend basic moral principles, or rules of conduct, judgments about what is right and wrong (American Society for Public Administration).

- There are three main schools of thought that have influenced the ethical thinking as given below.
  - Teleology/utilitarianism: the consequences of action
  - Deontology: duty or principle behind the action
  - Virtue ethics: ethics grounded in virtue and moral character

Utilitarianism

- Utilitarianism promotes doing what's best for the most significant number of people. While individual happiness is important, utilitarianism takes a more collective approach by looking out for the greater good of society as a whole.
- An example of this theory is the government's COVID-19 lockdown restrictions, which involved sacrificing the interests of a few for the sake of many's benefits as lockdown avoids large numbers of preventable deaths. Utilitarianism seeks to strike a balance between the demands of society and those of the individual, prioritising the greatest good for the most significant number of individuals. However, despite how appealing the utilitarian concept may seem, it does have its flaws.
- As seen in the example of COVID-19 lockdown restrictions, sometimes what is best for most, may be bad for a particular individual or group. Lockdowns caused great suffering through increased intimate partner violence, mental illness, and poverty levels. Unemployment is likely caused by the recession that began during the lockdown and may go on for a long time.
- One such criticism of utilitarianism is that its application relies heavily on the ability to foresee what would result in the greatest possible outcomes. In many cases, it is difficult to predict with absolute certainty what the results of a certain action will be. It is frequently impractical to conduct an exhaustive series of trials in order to identify all possible outcomes, and this difficulty is increased when human beings are included in the research. Therefore, maximising the value to society means making educated guesses and accepting the possibility that even the greatest assumption might be incorrect. In spite of these criticisms, utilitarianism is a useful tool for resolving ethical dilemmas and offers one perspective on engineering ethics problems.
- The fundamental principles of utilitarianism may be interpreted in a variety of ways. Act utilitarianism and rule utilitarianism are two examples of this kind of utilitarianism.
- Act utilitarianism places more of an emphasis on people's actions than it does on rules. Selflessness is the conviction that it is the good deed that results in the greatest amount of happiness for the largest number of people. It is a philosophy that believes that the morality of activity is decided by its usefulness to the majority of people and that this act complies with the moral norms as it offers more benefit or happiness to more people.
- As opposed to this, rule utilitarianism holds that an activity may be ethically justified if it follows the rules that would result in the most significant benefit or happiness. It is founded on the principle that the rules by which an activity is performed are the most important factor in determining whether or not that action is proper and that the most significant benefit or pleasure may be attained by following the correct rule.
- Various forms of engineering analysis, such as risk-benefit and cost-benefit analyses, rely heavily on utilitarianism.

Cost-Benefit Analysis

- Cost-benefit analysis is a common tool used in engineering analysis based on utilitarianism. In a cost-benefit analysis, both the expenses and returns on investment are calculated. The initiatives with the greatest benefit-to-cost ratio will be prioritised. This idea is equivalent to the utilitarian pursuit of maximum social benefit.
- In the same way utilitarianism has its flaws, cost-benefit analysis may have its own set of complications. While project expenses

are often straightforward to estimate, the advantages gained are more difficult to pin down and put a price on. Once the dollar and rupee values for the benefits and costs are known, a mathematical proportion may seem to be the most objective and, hence the best approach to decide. But numerous subjective factors cannot be accounted for by this ratio. Creating a dam, for instance, may seem to be a great plan if just one considers the financial benefits without considering the potential environmental costs. This study will not include a loss of a picturesque wilderness region, or the extinction of a species with no present economic worth.

- It is essential to ascertain if the beneficiaries will also be the ones to bear the burdens. It is not right to have one group make all the sacrifices while others enjoy the fruits of the labour.
- Although numerous commonalities exist between cost-benefit analysis and utilitarianism, the latter is not an ethical, analytical method.
- The ethical analysis seeks to identify the right course of action. A cost-benefit analysis is performed to establish whether a project is financially viable. When faced with an ethical dilemma, it is important first to ascertain the correct option to take before considering the associated financial consequences.

Duty Ethics and Rights Ethics

- Deontological ethics, on the other hand, focuses on an individual's actions rather than consequences. As it cannot be pointed out to positive results to back up one's acts, this view is non-consequentialist. Do the correct thing as it is the right thing to do, and stay away from wrong because it is wrong. It goes without saying that doing crimes like murder, theft, lying, etc., is unethical.
- Because of their shared characteristics, duty ethics, and rights ethics will be addressed together. According to these theorists, righteous deeds are those that recognise and protect personal autonomy. Here, positive effects on the community at large are not the main criterion for morality.
- Immanuel Kant, a prominent proponent of responsibility ethics, argued that moral obligations must be established first and foremost. It is possible to compile a list of ethical obligations, such as 'be honest,' 'do not cause pain to others,' 'be fair,' and so on. Because these things are universal ideals and show respect for others, people owe them to themselves. When one understands what is expected of him, the morally right thing to do becomes clear. In this concept, moral behaviour naturally follows from doing one's job well.
- Humans have rights, according to John Locke's natural rights theory (rights ethics). These are rights that everyone has regardless of where they come from or what they believe in, in the same sense as ethics. This evolved into the modern concept of human rights. According to the ideas of rights ethics, everyone has inalienable rights that must be upheld in a just society.
- According to the principles of obligation ethics, individuals have a responsibility to uphold the rights of others. Further, according to the ethics of rights, everyone has inherent rights that society has a responsibility to uphold. When it comes to morality, obligation, and rights are really complementary. Both theories converge on the conclusion that it is the right to treat others with respect and actions that do so are ethically commendable.
- Issues arise in the duty and rights theories, similar to utilitarianism. To begin, there may be conflicts between the fundamental rights of one group and those of another. Is there a way to rank people's rights? This issue cannot be resolved satisfactorily using rights and obligation ethics; as a result, the utilitarian method, which seeks to decide what will be for the most significant benefit, is more applicable in this situation.
- As the focus is on the person, his/her interests may take precedence over those of society as a whole. The second problem with the

responsibility and rights approaches to ethics would be that they do not always regard the greater good.

- The previously discussed theories provide several perspectives on ethical issues and, thus, many potential answers. Therefore, it is essential to take into account a wide range of ideas in order to arrive at a robust set of findings after investigating an ethical conundrum.
- As per Immanuel Kant, "an action or decision is right if it is done from a duty standpoint."

Virtue Ethics

- Responsible behaviour, trustworthiness, competence, and loyalty are all lauded by proponents of virtue ethics. Additional traits to take into account are honesty, fairness, kindness, civic duty, and respect.
- The study of what makes a good person is at the heart of virtue ethics. The term 'virtue' is often used to describe an admirable quality in a person. A virtuous person has and exhibits praiseworthy qualities. In virtue ethics, an action is ethical if it helps people develop strong characteristics, and wrong if it helps people develop bad character traits.
- Character flaws include dishonesty, disloyalty, carelessness, and ineptitude. As can be seen, virtue ethics places a premium on having a strong moral character. As good human beings, people strive to better their personal and moral characters.
- Contextualist approach: it does not accept rules that others have made up. Right and evil, in this view, are context-specific as there are no absolute moral principles. This means that there is no one-size-fits-all answer to legal problems, for example, in some places, lockdown during a pandemic is justified due to a worsening situation, but in other places may not be justified. The United States uses protectionism in global trade, citing its situation.
- Super-naturalist approach: when God is seen as the only judge of right and wrong, then God decrees is the highest standard of ethics. Ethical living, therefore, involves doing what God commands. God created animals to be inferior to humans so that people may use them for food, clothing, and other needs.
- A person's professional success is a natural extension of personal success. This method may seem to emphasise general morals more than engineering, or professional ethics. Yet, one's morals cannot (or at least must not) be detached from one's actions in the job.
- Virtue ethics seems to be less specific and less highly vulnerable to critical examination. Because it is significantly harder to explain non-human institutions, such as a company or an administration in aspects of virtue, it can be even harder to implement this form of moral framework to the kinds of difficulties that one will take into account in this discussion. But it can be done, considering and responding to questions as given below.
    - Have we made any morally acceptable choices?
    - Is this a dishonest act?
    - Will this action demonstrate loyalty to one's community and employer?
- After receiving responses to these questions, the appropriate path of conduct is often obvious. The first step to applying ethical principles to the analysis of a particular ethical dilemma is to identify the traits and behaviours that are pertinent to the subject in question. The next step is to figure out what kind of action is recommended by each of these.
- It may be beneficial for engineers to have a solid understanding of the notions of ethical principles in order to do their work more effectively. When Aristotle discusses virtues, for instance, he focuses on the characteristics of a person's personality that contribute to his success in his selected line of work. As per Aristotle, whatever he refers to as 'human excellence' is a person who has high moral conduct.
- To put it another way, due to their excellent integrity, engineers are able to satisfy the moral and legal duties that come with their jobs. When it comes to engineering, the term 'virtue' refers to characteristics such as fairness, morality, and the ability to make

the judgement call when presented with a conundrum, as contrasted to the immorality that would follow from doing something evil, being deceitful, or not minding.

- The concept of 'virtue ethics' was developed to show experts the right way to act. It provides a more productive approach to dealing with ethical dilemmas by putting the focus on an engineer's internal strengths instead of outside restraints like rules and procedures.
- What kind of character is ideal? Is a question raised as a critique of the ethical theory of virtue? In general, virtue theorists have assumed this solution to be obvious. It has been noticed sometimes that a person's goodness might be another's sin.
- What is considered virtuous changes from person-to-person, culture-to-culture. It is difficult to pin down the exact details of the qualities, which is another criticism. It seems that various morality role models are available, depending on the culture.
- Critics of the virtue-based theory argue that it ignores the question of what kinds of activities are morally acceptable or unacceptable in favour of a discussion of the traits that one should cultivate to become a virtuous person.
- What matters most to virtue ethicists is not whether someone follows the rules or pays the consequences, but rather what type of person they are, such as kind or miserly, brave or coward, balanced or vulnerable, or self-indulgent.

Distinction between Ethical Theories

- Ethical theories offer required guidance that would take engineers on the correct path when it comes to producing a judgement about whether to act in a specific manner or abstain from certain behaviours in a particular circumstance. Engineers need to be directed in making decisions about what actions to take and what ones to avoid. Therefore, understanding the differences among consequential, deontological, and virtue theories is essential. The consequentialist theory is an example of a theory that takes into account both the fairness of a decision and the consequences of that choice. In ethical philosophy, the notion of virtue refers to the traits that are ideal and that a moral or virtuous person should possess. The deontological ethical theory places a premium on doing what one is supposed to.
- It is fantastic news that people do not have to pick one of these ideas to solve ethical problems. Instead, they might use each theory to approach a problem from different angles and then compare their findings. Consequently, they may learn what conclusion various methods of inquiry on a subject reach by exploring it from their unique perspectives.
- The responses provided by each of the hypotheses need to be thoroughly investigated, compared to the answers provided by the other theories, and carefully considered. After doing exhaustive research utilising each of the available ideas, a well-rounded opinion may be arrived at. Even though, the ideas are completely contradictory to one another, the results often remain the same.

Ethical Principles That Guide Engineering Practice

In engineering, one must adhere to the code of ethics, which may be thought of as a broad rule, or standard that supplies guidance for behaviour. These values include self-respect, helping, not hurting, and treating others fairly. Because engineers often find themselves in a moral conundrum when several or more values are in conflict with one another, this section will focus on those precepts that may reliably guide them toward making ethically sound judgments.

Respect for Autonomy

- To express oneself freely, make one's own decisions, and act in line with one's values and principles is a fundamental human right. It proposes a right to non-intervention and a responsibility to not restrict, or interfere with the free actions of others. According to the Oxford English Dictionary, having the freedom to make decisions for oneself is autonomy.

- An individual's freedom depends on his or her ability to voluntarily take steps toward a chosen way to proceed, or to live the chosen life. Autonomy is defined as the lack of direct or indirect limitations that would damage this ability.

Justice

- Justice means the ethical need to treat others fairly. Having a duty to treat others equally and to tailor one's actions to the specific needs of each person. It is generally agreed that fairness rests on the principle of equality. Aristotle argues that fairness entails further than mere equality as persons might be wrongfully dealt with even under conditions of perfect equality. This is because everyone should be given the same opportunities in life and fairly treated.
- Fair resource allocation, protection of individual rights, and adherence to ethically just rules are the three pillars of justice as interpreted by Gillon. When individuals are treated unfairly because of who they are (e.g., their age, health, nationality, and sexuality), this is an example of unfairness. One may not strictly adhere to this when discussing moral and legal principles.
- However, injustice is defined as any wrongdoing that prevents individuals from receiving their fair share of benefits or from sharing the burdens of society fairly.

Beneficence

- Actions motivated by empathy, kindness, giving, selflessness, respect, and humanity contribute to this practice. The concept of beneficence requires people to avoid causing damage to others and to behave in ways that are commonly seen as beneficial. "The concept of beneficence relates to a moral imperative to behave for the good of others," write Beauchamp and Childress.
- There are duties to provide advantages and to prevent and remedy environmental harm, and these duties are imposed by the principle of beneficence, which is a kind of creative instruction.

Principle of Non-Maleficence

The great nineteenth-century philosopher JS Mill believed that one's acts and lack of actions may produce evil in the lives of others. As it emphasises refraining from harmful actions, non-maleficence is sometimes described as a negative instruction.

Honesty or Truth-Telling

The principle requires full and impartial disclosure of information that could be considered legitimately important to others.

Fidelity or Promise Keeping

It recognises an obligation to honour agreements and keep promises freely entered into and deliberately made.

Ethics versus Morality

- The study of ethics emphasises the decision-making process for establishing what is morally good and wrong. This might sometimes include balancing the benefits and drawbacks of various options or contrasting values and interests. The ideas of a particular religion often serve as the foundation for morality, which is a behavioural code that one uses to guide ethical decision-making.
- One's own internal compass serves as the source of one's morality. A more external set of rules and ethics is there to guide all.
- Morality refers to the standards that each individual determines for themselves on what constitutes good and wrong, while ethics is concerned with the norms of behaviour established by workplace rules.
- Ethics is a collection of concepts that have consciously evolved over the course of time. Morality is something that might be described as an intuitive feeling.
- Ethical decision-making is like following a road plan. The concept of morality refers to an established set of guidelines that may be utilised to evaluate one's actions.
- The concept of ethics refers to guidelines for how things ought to be. What actions one 'should' be doing? The actions one does, their manner of conduct, attention to what 'is', etc., are the primary determinants of one's morality.

Kohlberg's Theory of Moral Development

- Kohlberg's theory of moral development examines the growth of moral cognition and action in young people. A set of six phases are proposed by Kohlberg's theory of moral growth. In addition, the theory argues that fairness is the central goal of moral reasoning.
- To test his idea, Kohlberg put his participants through a variety of moral hardships. In-depth interviews were conducted to learn why the participants made the decisions they did.

Stages of Moral Development

Three main tiers may be identified in Kohlberg's idea. There are two phases of moral growth for every level. It was Kohlberg's view that not everyone reaches the pinnacle of moral growth.

Preconventional Morality

- The first stage in the creation of morality is known as preconventional morality. It lasts until a child is around nine years old. At this stage in their development, children's choices are influenced mainly by the aspirations of adults and the repercussions of disobeying the rules. Within this level, there are two distinct levels.
- Stage one (obedience and punishment): obedience and punishment are very frequent in young children during the early stages of moral development; nevertheless, adults can also express this thinking style. This stage is referred to as the 'obedience and punishment' stage. According to Kohlberg, those who have reached this level see regulations as unchangeable and unquestionable. Because disobeying the rules allows one to avoid getting in trouble, doing so is a very important thing to do.
- In the second stage, known as 'individualism and exchange,' children who have reached the individuality and exchange stage of moral development can consider the perspectives of others and evaluate behaviours according to the extent to which they satisfy individual requirements. Children debated that the solution to the problem posed by Heinz should be the one that provided the most benefit to Heinz and his requirements. At this stage in the evolution of morality, reciprocity is theoretically conceivable, but only if doing so is advantageous to the actor.

Conventional Morality

- The adoption of societal conventions about what is desirable and moral marks the next stage of moral growth. When people reach adulthood, they begin to absorb the moral ideals they have picked up from their role models and the larger society. During this time frame, students are also taught the importance of respecting established authorities and fitting in with peer pressure. At this level of morality, there are two distinct phases.
- Stage three (good relationships) of moral development is concerned with conforming to social norms and roles; this stage is also known as the 'good boy/good girl' attitude. Conformity, 'niceness,' and thinking about the effects of one's actions on others are valued.
- At this point, the emphasis shifts to stage four (maintaining societal order), which has its primary goal to upkeep the social stability. At this point in their moral growth, individuals start to take the community at large into account. The importance of obeying the rules, performing one's duty, and showing respect for authority is emphasised.

Post Conventional Morality

- At this point in their moral development, humans can grasp the broad, theoretical underpinnings of right and wrong. There are two phases at this level.
- Individuals in the fifth stage (the stage of the social contract and individual rights) start taking into consideration the fact that other people have different views, values, and beliefs from their own. Regulation by legislation is essential for maintaining social order, but all participating individuals must agree on what constitutes a just and equitable society.
- At the sixth and final stage of Kohlberg's development of moral reasoning, called

'Universal Principles,' one uses abstract reasoning based on universal ethical principles. At this point, individuals will obey their own internally established standards of justice even if they directly oppose externally established norms.

Gilligan's Stages of Moral Development

Gilligan's concept was similar to Kohlberg's in that it included a three-stage framework and a two-stage change over. The following is a description of the various levels and stages. Gilligan created her phase theory of moral development as a consequence of her research on abortion choice, first published in a 1977 article and later expanded upon in her work, 'In a Different Voice.'

Morality before the Conventions

If a woman is torn between her interests and the interests of others around her, she will choose the former. When making moral decisions, the average person is only concerned with his or her well-being and survival.

First Transition

For the first time, she begins to consider the possibility that her previous ethical attitude was seen as self-serving. The woman realises for the first time, as she makes the transition from the preconventional to the conventional level, that she is liable for the well-being of many other people.

Traditional Morality

As a result of her lack of selfishness, she puts other people's needs before her own. At this juncture, moral judgement is concerned primarily with the welfare of the community at large. The woman gradually comes to regard herself as a contributing part of a society that prioritises the well-being of its members above all else.

Second Transition

Her moral code evolves from goodness to truth as she takes an honest look into her own desires and her duties to others. Whenever a woman makes her second transition from the typical to the post conventional stage, she may have a heightened sense of tension between her personal desires and demands and those of her social group. She is starting to realise that she has to take into account the feelings and wishes of those around her.

Morality beyond the Threshold

- A female's capacity for personal accountability depends on her readiness to fulfil her duty of reasonable care without placing herself or others at risk of succumbing to exploitation.
- Non-violence is the guiding concept for moral decision-making in the post conventional stage. The woman has concluded that a global morality of love and consideration must include not just the wants of others but also her own.
- As Gilligan did not specify a minimum or maximum age for moral education, one can only speculate about where in that range it may lie. But, like Kohlberg in his theory, she admitted that not all females would reach the top. She also discovered that a female's ability to think critically and grow as an individual was more important to her success than her personal experiences.

Abraham Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs

- According to Abraham Maslow's theory of the hierarchy of needs, people are driven to take action by a combination of many different types of physical hunger. Most fundamental requirements are at the base of the pyramid, while more sophisticated wants are at the top.
- According to this theory, people's motivation stems from meeting their most fundamental wants before focusing on more complex ones. To Maslow, it was more important to understand what makes individuals happy and how they go about achieving that state.
- Maslow, a humanist, thought that everyone had an innate need to realise their full potential. Many prerequisites must be satisfied before this ultimate aim may be reached. Food, shelter, affection, and a healthy sense of self-worth fall under this category.
- Maslow theorised that these requirements functioned much like instincts, driving one's actions. Maslow's hierarchy of requirements

consists of five distinct tiers, the first of which is physiology.

Physiological Needs

- Physiological necessities, such as food and water, are easy to identify. Physiological requirements include things like sustenance, hydration, respiration, and maintenance of internal body temperature.
- Shelter and clothes are examples of physiological demands that go beyond the more obvious need for food, air, and temperature control. The importance of sexual reproduction to the continuation of a species led Maslow to place it in his hierarchy.

Security and Safety Needs

- The needs at the second level of Maslow's hierarchy are somewhat more complicated than those at first. At this point, safety and security are at the forefront of people's minds. The need for command and discipline is universal. As a result, the desire for protection plays a significant role in shaping actions at this stage.
- Financial stability, physical health, and protection from harm caused by accidents or illness all rank among the most fundamental forms of safety and security. Basic needs are related to the first two categories of Maslow's hierarchy of needs: safety and physiological.

Social Needs

The social needs in Maslow's hierarchy include such things as love, acceptance, and belonging. At this level, the need for emotional relationships drives human behaviour.

Esteem Needs

- Maslow places the need for esteem and admiration at the top of his pyramid. The esteem requirements become increasingly important in motivating behaviour when the basic, safety, and love needs have been met. It is important for people to feel that their efforts are being noticed and appreciated once they have completed a task. Self-esteem and a sense of value are two aspects of esteem that go beyond the need for recognition and admiration from others.
- Confidence is common among those who have met their esteem needs, both internally and externally. On the other hand, low self-esteem and lack of social regard may lead to feelings of inferiority.
- The 'psychological needs' of the hierarchy are comprised of the esteem and social status levels.

Self-Actualisation Needs

- The self-actualisation needs are at the highest level of Maslow's scale. Self-actualising individuals are conscious of themselves, work for their development, care less about what other people think, and want to actualise their potential.
- "It may be informally characterised as the complete application and exploitation of skills, capacities, potentialities, etc.," Maslow writes of self-actualisation. These individuals seem to be living their best lives and achieving their goals. It refers to persons who have reached or are in the process of reaching their full potential.

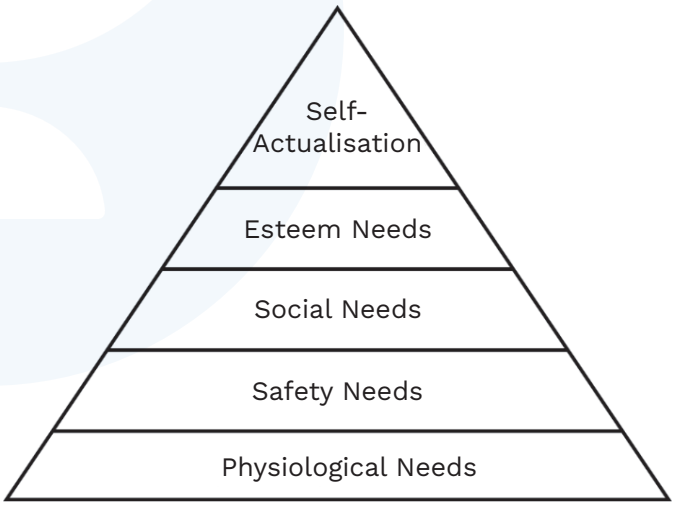


Fig. 2.1

Thinkers, Reformers, and Their Philosophies

Kautilya

More importantly, however, it contains a wide range of lessons on moral leadership; Kautilya suggests responsibilities for everyone from the monarch to the lowest-ranking bureaucrat to the average citizen. Kautilya's philosophy has

mostly been taken from the Arthashastra, his treatise on the art of statecraft. Its primary purpose is to serve as a manual of administrative codes.

Key Points from Kautilya's Philosophy

- 'Yogakshema, i.e., the Welfare State as an Ideology,' he opines that the well-being of the subjects is the welfare of the monarch, and the joy of the people is the joy of the king. What is good for the emperor's people is good for the monarch, and the king must not judge what is only good for himself. Consequently, he emphasised the importance of government in providing for the citizens' material needs. In Kautilya's view, the monarch is ultimately accountable for his people, and this idea is central to the Welfare State concept.
- 'Concept of materialism,' he gives the idea of 'Artha,' which has a broader meaning beyond personal possessions. He regarded that society should be above the individual interest. He regarded money as valuable only to the extent it serves as a means to acquire goods. Thus, it guides individuals to mould their lives for wealth generation in an ethical manner.
- 'Ideals of ethical conduct,' he lays down ideals of ethical conduct for each individual, to whichever social class he may belong, the duties of ahimsa (refraining from injury), satya (truthfulness), sauca (purity), anasuya (freedom from malice), anrsamsya (compassion), and kshama (forgiveness).
- 'Views on corruption,' he highlighted the endemic invisibility of corruption in the administration. He compared corrupt administrators with an analogy of a fish in water that cannot be caught when it drinks water. Hence, he proposed the need for a strong penal framework for tackling corruption and ensuring probity in civil administration.
- 'Maintenance of social order,' the old varna and ashrama social order are protected by the sovereign, according to Arthashastra. These rules are said to have been divinely established as they were found in the Veda. As a result, it cannot be changed. The government played no part in its development. There is, therefore, no use in making an effort to alter it. The state's primary responsibility is to ensure that this peace is maintained. Despite their incompatibility with the current constitutional structure, these notions are nevertheless relevant to the ethical behaviour of people and the state in upholding social order.

Buddha

- According to Buddhist teachings, the ethical and moral principles are governed by examining whether a certain action, body, or speech is likely to be harmful to oneself or others and thereby avoiding any actions which are likely to be harmful.
- In Buddhism, there is much talk of a skilled mind. A skilful mind avoids actions that are likely to cause suffering. Buddha focuses on moral discipline in which he focuses on the 'five precepts.' These apply to all the common people and are similar to basic lists of prohibitions in other great world religions. It seeks to commit to refrain from killing, stealing, sexual misconduct, lying, and drunkenness.
- All his teachings were derived from his core ideas which he propounded in the form of four noble truths, which are given below.
  - Dukkha: there is suffering
  - Samudaya: there is a cause of suffering
  - Nirodha: there is a solution to every suffering
  - Marga: there is a path to the cessation of suffering
- Buddha teaches us that if one understands these noble truths, one can get freedom from all the sufferings in this world.

Swami Vivekananda

- Swami Vivekananda was instrumental in revitalising and improving Hinduism in India and exposing India and her spiritual culture of Vedanta to the Western world. Swami Vivekananda made several significant contributions to contemporary society.
- Perhaps one of Swami Vivekananda's greatest legacies to the contemporary world is his

view of religion as the whole race's shared experience of universal truth. This universal conception of religion removes superstitions and intolerance from religion. It makes religion the pursuit of supreme freedom, knowledge, and happiness.

- Swami Vivekananda's concept of 'potential divinity of the soul' gives a new concept of man. This concept divinises human relationships and makes life meaningful and worth living.

Plato

- It is common knowledge that Plato was the greatest Greek philosopher. Indeed, he was one of Socrates' most devoted students. There were two key ideas in his mind.
- That which is good occurs when human nature is allowed to operate as intended. Furthermore, man is sociable by nature, making society a natural setting for moral development.
- A virtuous life is worth living, as the saying goes. Plato, like many other classical and medieval thinkers, believes that moral excellence is essential to fulfilment in life.
- He also propounded the framework of four cardinal virtues in his theory of morality, i.e. wisdom, courage, temperance, and justice, which together constitute a morally good life.

Key Lessons from Plato's Four Cardinal Virtues

- Wisdom: it includes knowing and mastering the non-rational elements such as spirited elements and passions. Thus, a wise man shall always be guided by rational rules rather than his impulses.
- Courage: it includes excellence in the activity of the will in a person. A courageous man can stay intact to the instructions of his intellect. It is of two types, the physical courage of a soldier and the moral courage of a thinker or a reformer. Thus, one can be courageous in war and intellectual convictions.
- Temperance: it includes self-control in keeping bodily satisfactions within limits. But it does not mean complete refraining, rather it focuses on controlling and ordering the instincts, desires, and sensual pleasures.
- Justice: it includes proper integration of all rational and non-rational parts of one's self. Justice consists in doing one's job, being morally perfect, and therefore, is synonymous with being wise, valiant, temperate, and just.

Aristotle

Aristotle was the disciple of Plato. He was the first one to write a book on ethics. His assertion that one must engage in repeated practice to acquire virtue suggests there are no hard and fast rules one can memorise and then follow. Learning from one's mistakes is what virtue is all about.

Key Points from Aristotle's Philosophy

- There is a purpose behind nature's actions. A telos is the end goal of all human endeavours (aim). It is from this teleological perspective that Aristotle's ethics derives its sense of purpose. The purpose of life is to mature into one's real nature, which is mostly logic.
- There is no human endeavour that does not have a goal that is inherently good at its core. Almost everything one does serves some greater purpose. The pursuit of pleasure is an objective in itself, not because it facilitates the attainment of some other goal. Ethical inquiry is driven by a desire to find the optimal path to contentment.
- To be happy, one must follow a life of virtue. This means that a virtuous person has an innate propensity to act in the right manner, for the right reasons, and to take satisfaction in doing so. The condition of virtue is somewhere in the middle, between excess and insufficiency. This means it varies from person-to-person, so there are no hard and fast rules as to how best to avoid vice.
- Aristotle classified justice into general and particular. The former deals with virtue expressed towards other people, whereas, the latter can be distributive, as well as, rectification.
- Distributive justice addresses how resources should be shared within a society. When two parties experience uneven gains or losses, they may seek redress via the application of rectification justice.
- According to Aristotle, deep thinking is the pinnacle of human achievement.

Aristotle ranks wisdom as the greatest of the intellectual qualities because it deals solely with eternal facts and is founded on both empirical study and an innate grasp of nature's fundamentals. As contemplation is what it means to be wise, it seems to reason that this state of mind should be prioritised above all others.

Immanuel Kant

- Kant, the German philosopher, is known for the deontological approach. Under this, he argues for duty-based ethics for modern life. His ideas are critical to understanding the complex system of ethics that affects our current lives.
- Central to Kant's construction of the moral law is the categorical imperative, which acts on all people, regardless of their interests or desires. Kant believed that there was a supreme principle of morality, and he referred to it as the categorical imperative. The categorical imperative determines what moral duties are.
- Kant also distinguished between perfect and imperfect duties. A perfect duty, such as the duty not to lie, always holds; an imperfect duty, such as the duty to give to charity, can be made flexible and applied at a particular time and place.

John Rawls

- John Rawls is an American moral and political philosopher who described a method for the moral evaluation of social and political institutions. He propounded his theory of justice using an experiment called the 'original position' and 'veil of ignorance.'
- Rawls recommends equal basic rights, equality of opportunity, and promoting the interests of the least advantaged members of society.
- Rawls believed that most people's conceptions of justice were based on what was beneficial for them personally rather than on any common or universal understanding. To get to the heart of the matter, Rawls invites people to picture a world devoid of society in which individuals have no idea of their ultimate destinies.
- If people pretend to believe in Rawls's hypothetical, their conceptions of justice will converge in a certain direction. They, according to Rawls, will only become a part of society when their basic needs are addressed regardless of their family of origin.
- Rawls thinks society will conform to rules that everyone would agree to in the original position. He developed principles of justice for a liberal society and challenged utilitarian political philosophy.
- Reflective equilibrium is the consistency and coherence between various opinions and beliefs. People often form opinions based on gut reaction or instinct or by focussing on the specifics of a situation. Each of these approaches can, at times, be unreasonable and inconsistent. By forcing people to test how theirdifferent beliefs fit together, Rawls encourages them to make sure their set of beliefs make sense and are consistent.

Baba Amte

- Baba Amte was well-known as a social worker, activist, and Gandhian, but his contributions to the social and economic uplift of society's outcasts and downtrodden earned him special renown. He worked tirelessly for many different social movements, including the Quit India movement, corruption awareness campaigns, ecological balance advocacy, and animal conservation. He fought corruption, mismanagement, and a lack of long-term planning by using Gandhian ideas.
- He established the Anandwan Ashram as a place for rehabilitating leprosy patients, where they were trained to become self-sufficient through manual labour.
- When scepticism about national integration had set in as a result of sectarian violence, he established Bharat Jodo Abhiyan to restore optimism.
- He was involved with the Narmada Bachao Andolan, which protested the unfair eviction of locals and the environmental destruction caused by the Sardar Sarovar Dam.

E Sreedharan

- The tireless efforts of E Sreedharan, better known as 'metro man,' have improved the lives of many people. With his efforts and foresight, the Delhi Metro and the Konkan railways are now more efficient and innovative than ever before. He was revered for his analytical precision and punctuality.
- Sreedharan was on the verge of quitting the project because of a disagreement with the Railway ministry over a choice of gauge, despite working with a government organisation, he faced many challenges in the form of political interference and resource paucity in the process of completing the project. But he stuck with it and finished the assignment not just on time but also with unimpeachable honesty and candour.
- As a firm believer in the democratic ethos of public utility, he believed that every citizen should have equal access to it. These values are seen in the operation of the various project he had undertaken, like the Delhi Metro.
- He described punctuality, integrity, professional competence, and social accountability as the four cardinal pillars of work culture and attributed his success in life to scrupulous adherence to these values. He believed that ethics must be a compulsion, not an option.

TN Seshan

- During his tenure as the nation's tenth Chief Election Commissioner from 1990 to 1996, IAS officer TN Seshan made his mark. His relentless measures to restore order, justice, and honesty to general elections, the world's biggest democracy, was cited as the reason he received the Ramon Magsaysay award in 1996.
- In addition to cracking down on illegal techniques like wall graffiti, he also implemented the 'code of ethical conduct' and closely monitored poll spending limitations. Under his careful direction, voter IDs started being issued to all eligible voters.
- He reshaped the political landscape of the nation. Among more than hundred electoral frauds, he catalogued erroneous voter lists, improperly located polling places, threats and intimidation during campaigning, excessive expenditure, and the employment of thugs to steal ballot boxes.
- He was ruthless and unforgiving when it came to electoral rules and practices. He enforced strictness on his electoral staff, as well as, on politicians for any kind of electoral malpractice or indiscipline. In 1994, he advised the then Prime Minister to remove two sitting cabinet ministers from the cabinet for reportedly influencing voters.
- He believed in two principles, i.e., zero delay and deficiency. He faced various challenges, but he responded to them in the following way, "I am like a ball, the more you kick me, the more I will bounce back."

Key Terms

The terms beliefs, norms, values, morality, ethics, and principles are often used interchangeably, but there are subtle differences between them.

Beliefs

- One's experiences shape one's beliefs, which in turn shape thoughts, points of view, expertise, and dispositions. Beliefs are the basis of one's thinking.
- Beliefs generate feelings but may not always translate into behaviour. It is possible for two individuals to have opposing views on the same phenomena.
- Each person needs something to believe in to flourish. They matter because of the inspiration they provide. Yet convictions are not immutable; rather, they are malleable.

Norms

- Norms are the established societal standards that people are expected to follow. Norms are often used as a set of unofficial standards for what constitutes acceptable behaviour within a certain community. They represent the norms people in a certain community have towards one another.

- When people are subjected to social pressure in the form of norms, they are more likely to behave in a way that is consistent with the group as a whole and less likely to deviate from the norm. They manifest themselves in a variety of folkways, rituals, and other social practises.

Principles

Everyone has their own set of priorities and morals that they hold dear. Diverse societies and cultures may also have different norms of conduct. However, principles are generalised ethical standards. Fairness, honesty, equality, justice, etc., are all examples of universal principles.

Morals

- When people talk about morals, they mean their values and principles about what they think is right, and wrong, good and bad, appropriate and inappropriate.
- Even while moral codes lay out what ought to be done, following them is a matter of individual conviction. However, in the end, each person must decide for themselves what standards of morality they will apply to determine whether or not a certain behaviour is acceptable. Amoral people are individuals that do not care if their actions are good or bad, whereas immoral people are the opposite.